

Algorithms Analysis

- ✓ Sequential, random, binary search.
 - ✓ Bubble sort, Mergesort, quicksort.
 - ✓ A common technique: Divide and conquer
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- Solving recurrences
 - Strassen's matrix multiplication
 - Closest-pair and Convex-Hull problems

Searching Algorithm

Randomized searching in an unsorted array.

- Loop forever
 - Guess a number m from 1 to N . (or, 0 to $N-1$)
 - If $A[m]$ is the target, return m .
- If the target exists, what is the expected #iteration?
- Expected #iteration=
- $(1/n)(1) + ((n-1)/n)(1/n)(2) + ((n-1)/n)((n-1)/n)(1/n)(3) + ((n-1)/n)((n-1)/n)((n-1)/n)(1/n)(4) + \dots$

- Let $x = (n-1)/n < 1$
- Expected #iteration
- $= (1/n)(1) + ((n-1)/n)(1/n)(2) + ((n-1)/n)((n-1)/n)(1/n)(3) + ((n-1)/n)((n-1)/n)((n-1)/n)(1/n)(4) + \dots$
- $= (1/n)[1x^0 + 2x^1 + 3x^2 + 4x^3 + \dots]$
- $= (1/n)(1/(1-x)^2)$
- $= n$
- Expected time $= O(n)$
- Worst case time = infinity
- Best case time $= O(1)$

It is just an example of randomized algorithm. Practically, we have no reason to use this for searching arrays.

Average case of Sequential search (for linked list, and unsorted array) — $O(n)$

- If the target is in the first position $\rightarrow$ 1 step
- If the target is in the 2nd position $\rightarrow$ 2 steps
- If the kth positions $\rightarrow$ k steps
- Every position has the same probability — $1/n$.
- Expected time $= (1/n)(1) + (1/n)(2) + \dots$
 $+ (1/n)(n) = (1/n)(1+2+\dots+n) = (n+1)/2 = O(n)$

Average case of Sequential search (for linked list, and unsorted array) — $O(n)$

- From the view of conditional probability:
- 1 step, $\text{prob} = 1/n$
- 2 steps, $\text{prob} = [(n-1)/n] [1/(n-1)] = 1/n$
- 3 steps, $\text{prob} = [(n-1)/n] [(n-2)/(n-1)] [1/(n-2)] = 1/n$
-
- Expected time $= (1/n)(1) + (1/n)(2) + \dots$
 $+ (1/n)(n) = (1/n)(1+2+\dots+n) = (n+1)/2 = O(n)$

Searching-Revisit

- For a sorted or unsorted linked list,
 - $O(n)$ time.
- For a sorted array,
 - $O(\log n)$ time, binary search is used.
- For an unsorted array,
 - $O(n)$ time.
- Can we do better in each case?

For sorted arrays

- Is $O(\log n)$ time the optimal worst case?
 - For comparison-based algorithms, yes.
 - $O(\log n)$ is also the lower bound of worst case.
 - We cannot do better.
 - Decision tree.

For linked list, sorted or unsorted

- Is $O(n)$ the optimal worst case?
- Yes, because
- $O(n)$ is the lower bound of worst case.
- Proof: A worst case scenario: the target is in the middle. The time to reach it from each end is $n/2 = O(n)$. Q.E.D.
- Note,
- **lower bound of worst case $\neq$ best case.**

For unsorted array with arbitrary order.

- Is $O(n)$ the optimal worst case?
- Yes.
- The technique used to prove this is called “fooling algorithm”.
- It is not an algorithm, but a technique for proving.

Average case analysis for upper bounds

- For a sorted or unsorted linked list,
 - $O(n)$ time.
 - For a sorted array,
 - $O(\log n)$ time, binary search is used.
 - For an unsorted array,
 - $O(n)$ time.
 - All of them are the same as worst case.
- Techniques in probability will be used.

Average case time complexity for binary search

- In a sorted array.
 - If the target is at the middle, it requires 1 step.
 - One element requires 1 step.
 - Two elements require 2 steps.
 - Four elements require 3 steps.
 - Eight elements require 4 steps.
 - ...
 - 2^{k-1} elements require k steps.
 - ...
 - 2^{m-2} elements require m-1 steps 
 - $\leq 2^{m-1}$ elements require m steps
- For big-O notation, it is enough to consider this only.
 - Why?

Average case time complexity

$\Omega(\log n)$

- $1+2+4+\dots+2^{m-2} < n$
- $1+2+4+\dots+2^{m-2} + 2^{m-1} \geq n$
- Therefore, $2^{m-1} - 1 < n \leq 2^m - 1$
- $\log(n+1) \leq m < \log(n+1)+1$
- Recall that 2^{m-2} elements require $m-1$ steps.
- $\rightarrow \geq (n+1)/4$ elements require $\geq \log(n+1)-1$ steps.
- Totally, there are more than $(1/4)(n+1)[\log(n+1)-1]$ steps.
- On average, each element requires more than $(1/n)(1/4)(n+1)[\log(n+1)-1]$ steps.
- $\rightarrow \Omega(\log n)$

Average case time complexity

$\Theta(\log n)$

- Average case time complexity
- $<$ worst case time complexity
- $= O(\log n)$
- Therefore,
- average case time complexity = $\Theta(\log n)$

Sorting Algorithms

Sorting—

Design and Analysis of Algorithms

- Standard algorithms
 - Bubble sort
 - Selection sort
 - Insertion sort
 - Mergesort (not in place)
 - Quicksort
 - Heapsort (easy, but not for this course)
- We try to learn the way to prove the correctness and the time complexity.
- Suppose the required outputs are in ascending order.

Selection sort

Another example of correctness proof

- S = the input set of elements of size N .
- While S is not empty
 - Take out the smallest one from S , and output it.
- After each iteration, the output sequence is in order, and if there are remaining elements, then, the last element in the output sequence is no more than all remaining elements.
- We use induction on m , the number of iterations passed.
- Base case: $m=1$. After the first iteration, the smallest element x has been taken away to the output. It is no more than any element left in S . The output sequence has only one element, and therefore, in order. The statement is true for $m=1$.

Selection sort

Another example of correctness proof

- Assume the statement is true for $m=k$.
- Consider the statement for $m=k+1$.
- Take out the smallest element x from S . Then, x is no more than any remaining element.
- Let the last element in the output be y . By inductive assumption, $y \leq x$.
- Append x to the output sequence. Then, the output sequence is in order, and x becomes the last element which is no more than any element in S . Done!
- Result follows from induction.

Design and Analyze together.

- When we are writing recursions in algorithms/programming, we are doing mathematical induction in our mind.
- Mergesort and Quicksort are examples.

Mergesort

- Suppose that a function `merge(L1, L2)` which accepts two sorted linked lists, `L1` and `L2`, merges them into one sorted linked list, `L`, and outputs `L`.
- `merge(L1, L2)` needs $O(|L1|+|L2|)$ time.

Mergesort(L)

- Given a unsorted linked list, L.
- If $|L|=0$ or 1, return L.
- Statement: Mergesort(L) sorts the linked list L.
- Base cases: if $|L|=0$ or $|L|=1$, L is sorted already. The statement is true for $|L|=0$ or 1.

Mergesort(L)

- Divide the linked list into two halves, L1 and L2.
- Call Mergesort(L1);
- Call Mergesort(L2);
- L=Merge(L1,L2);
- Return L;
- Apply induction assumption to the two linked list, L1 and L2.
- That is, Mergesort(L1) sorts the linked list L1, and Mergesort(L2) sorts the linked list L2.
- L=Merge(L1,L2) merges L1 and L2 together to L.

Mergesort(L)

- What is the difficulty when you program Mergesort(L)?
- The function --- Merge(L1,L2) is the burden!

A common technique: Divide and Conquer

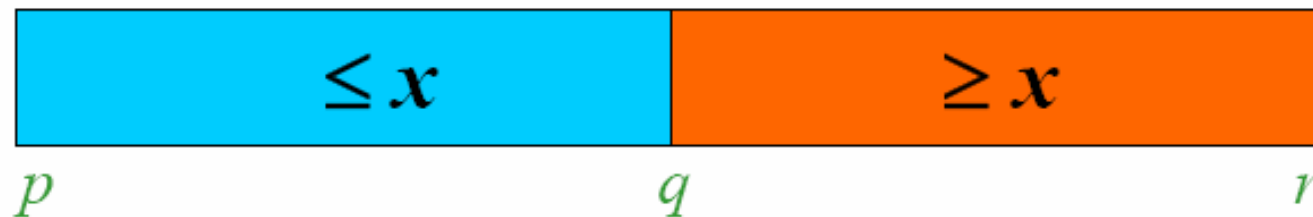
- Note, mergesort is a divide and conquer algorithm.
- Binary search is also divide and conquer.
- The coming quicksort is, too.

Quicksort

- Sort-in-place, like bubble sort and heapsort.
- Faster than mergesort, in practice
- For array.

Quicksort

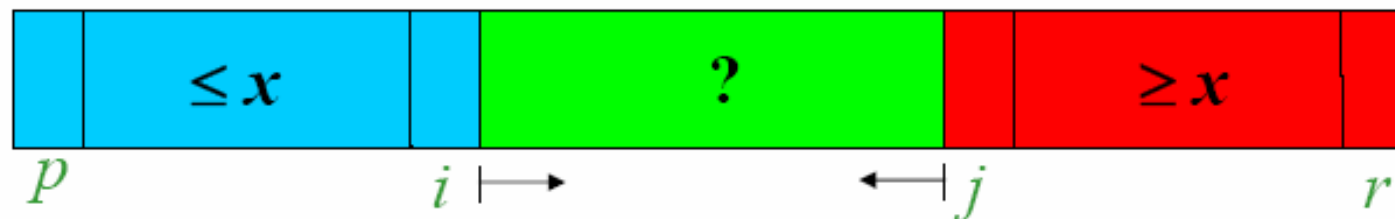
1. **Divide:** Partition the array into 2 subarrays such that elements in the lower part $\leq$ elements in the higher part



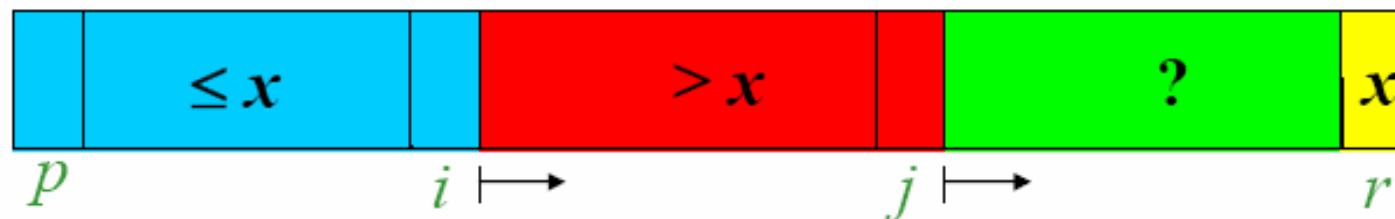
2. **Conquer:** Recursively sort 2 subarrays
 3. **Combine:** Trivial (because in-place)
- Key: Linear-time ($\Theta(n)$) partitioning algorithm

Two partitioning algorithms

1. **Hoare's algorithm:** Partitions around the first element of subarray ($pivot = x = A[p]$)



2. **Lomuto's algorithm:** Partitions around the last element of subarray ($pivot = x = A[r]$)



Hoare's Partitioning Algorithm

H-PARTITION (A, p, r)

$pivot \leftarrow A[p]$

$i \leftarrow p - 1$

$j \leftarrow r + 1$

while true do

repeat $j \leftarrow j - 1$ **until** $A[j] \leq pivot$

repeat $i \leftarrow i + 1$ **until** $A[i] \geq pivot$

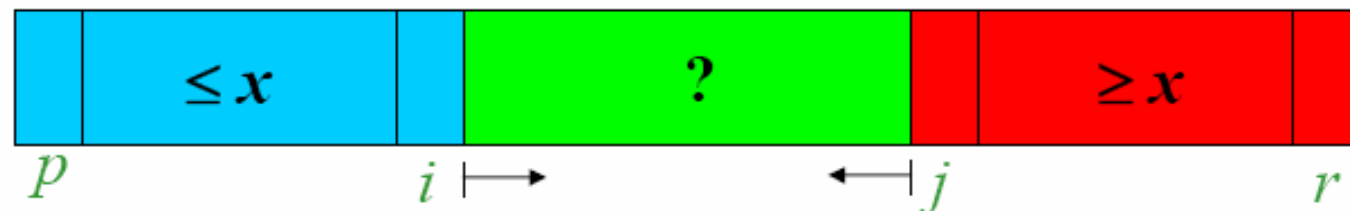
if $i < j$ **then**

exchange $A[i] \leftrightarrow A[j]$

else

return j

Running time
is $O(n)$



If $p \geq r$ then return

QUICKSORT (A, p, r)

if $p < r$ then

$q \leftarrow \text{H-PARTITION}(A, p, r)$

QUICKSORT(A, p, q)

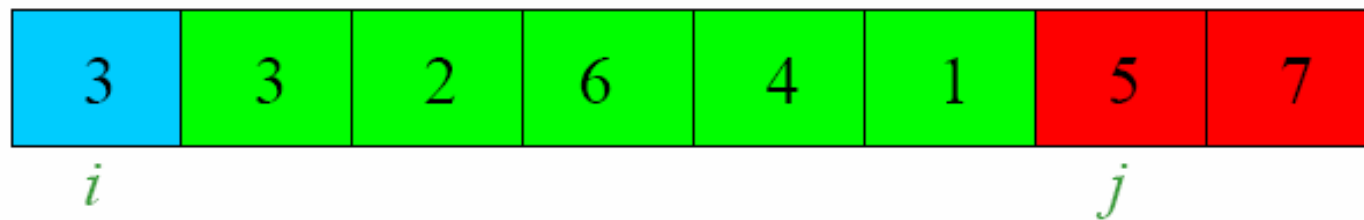
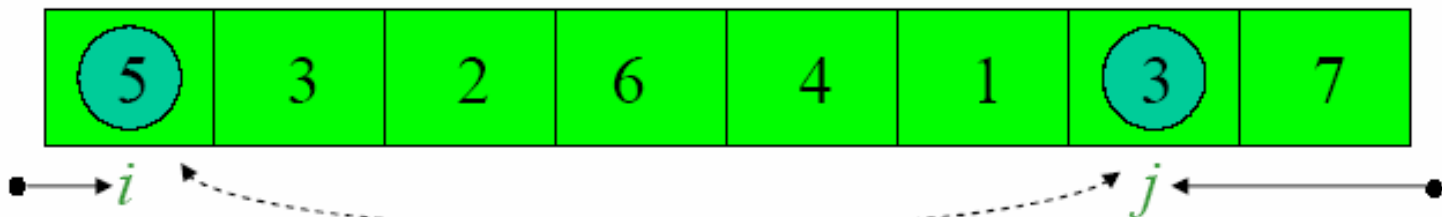
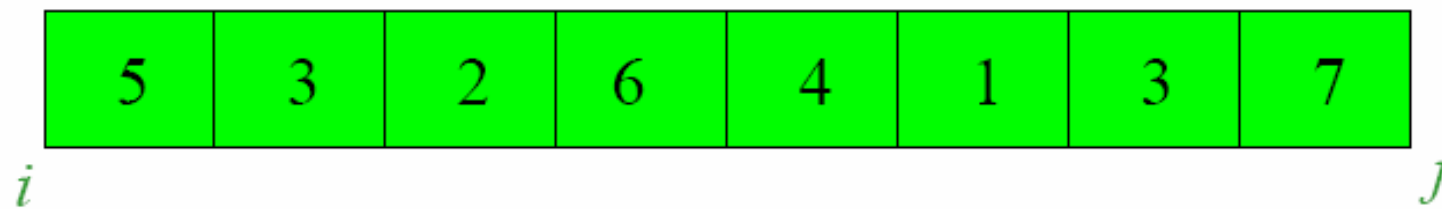
QUICKSORT($A, q + 1, r$)

Note, the burden of writing this algorithm is at partitioning.

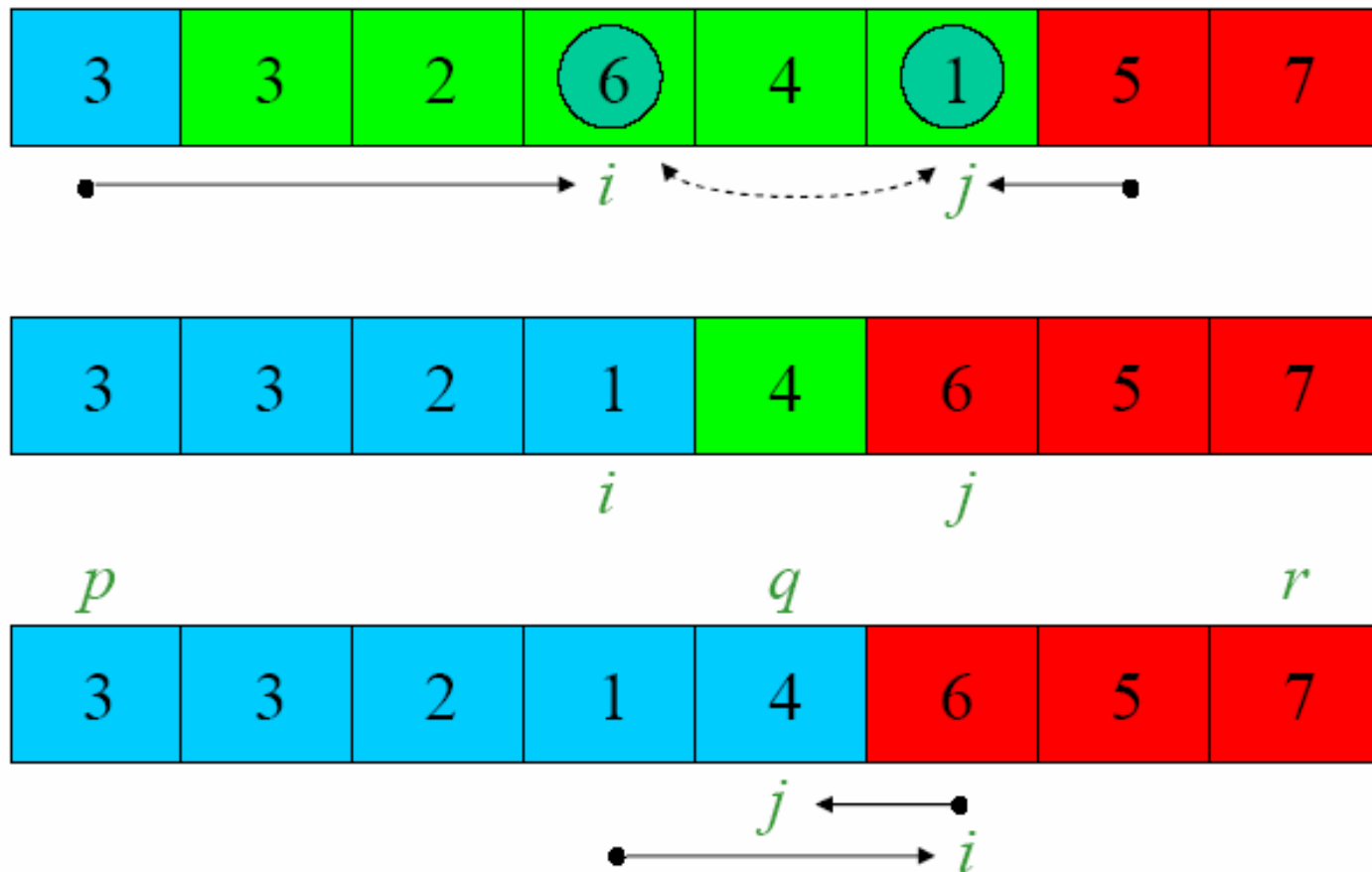
Initial invocation: QUICKSORT($A, 1, n$)



Hoare's Algorithm: Example 1 (pivot = 5)

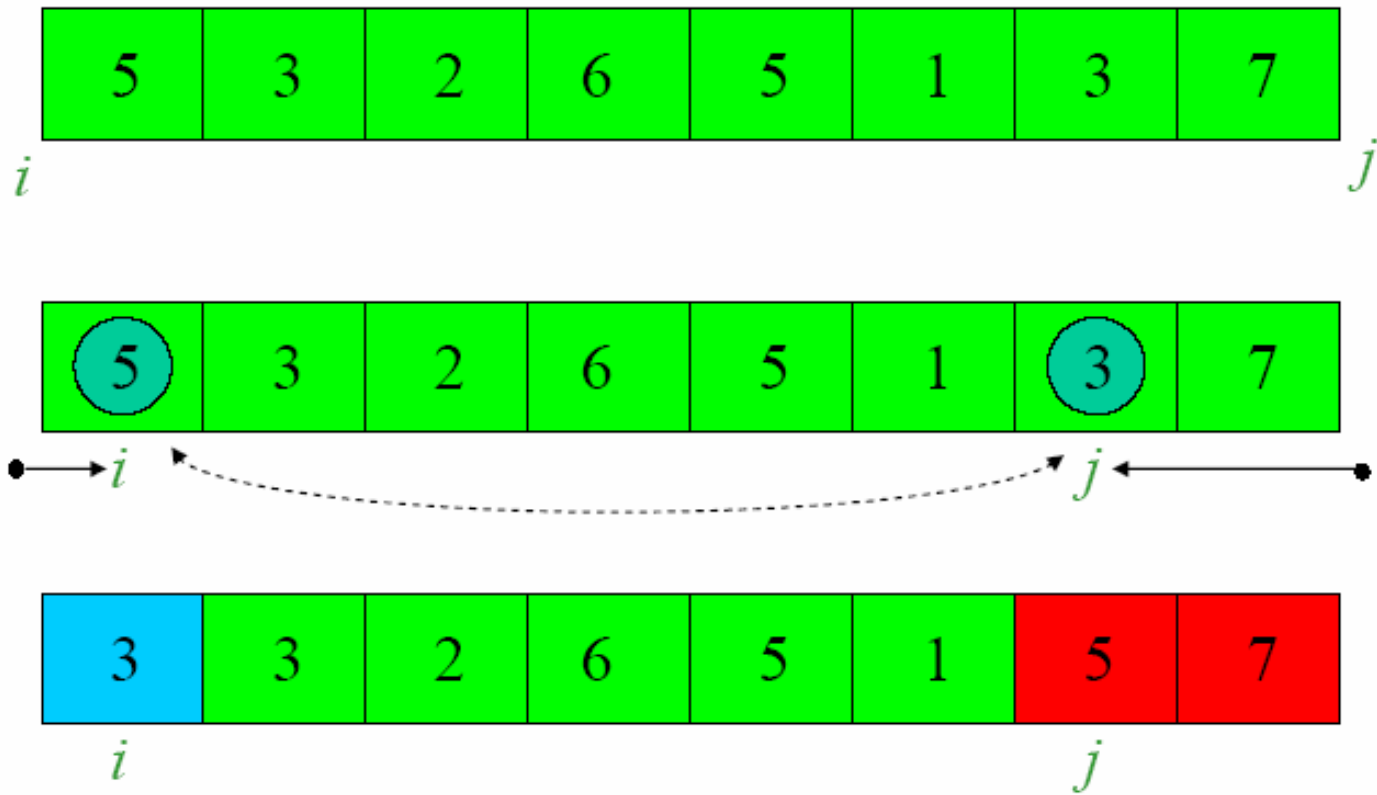


Hoare's Algorithm: Example 1 (pivot = 5)

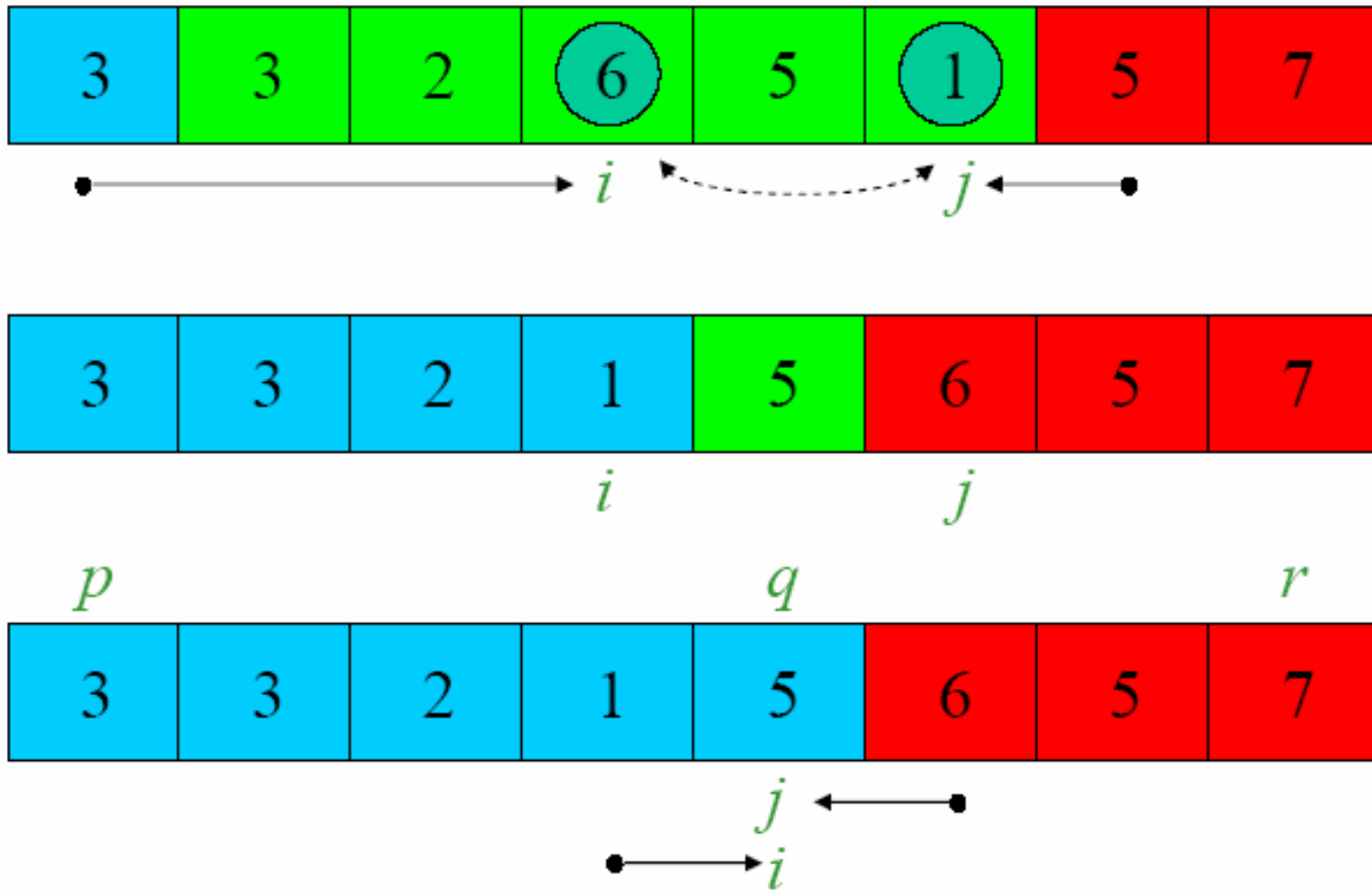


Termination: $i = 6; j = 5$, i.e., $i = j + 1$

Hoare's Algorithm: Example 2 (pivot = 5)



Hoare's Algorithm: Example 2 (pivot = 5)



Termination: $i = j = 5$

Why $O(n)$ -time?

#step is finite **H-PARTITION** (A, p, r)

- $O(1)$ $pivot \leftarrow A[p]$
- $O(1)$ $i \leftarrow p - 1$
- $O(1)$ $j \leftarrow r + 1$
- $O(n)$ $\longrightarrow$ **while true do**
- $O(n)$ $\longrightarrow$ **repeat** $j \leftarrow j - 1$ **until** $A[j] \leq pivot$
- $O(n)$ $\longrightarrow$ **repeat** $i \leftarrow i + 1$ **until** $A[i] \geq pivot$
- $O(1)$ **if** $i < j$ **then**
- $O(1)$ **exchange** $A[i] \leftrightarrow A[j]$
- $O(1)$ **else**
- $O(1)$ **return** j

Running
is $O(n)$